

Limitations and Ethics



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Two things you already have, that today leans on hard.

- **Lecture 1:** text is a lossy trace of a phenomenon; every downstream transformation obeys

$$I(S; T(O)) \leq I(S; O).$$

Bigger, more capable models do not repeal this. They make the loss harder to see.

- **Lecture 3:** foundation models *homogenize* — one model's flaws propagate into every system built on it, and you carry real obligations (governance, documentation) when you adopt one.

Today's question

What happens — ethically, and then epistemically — when a lossy, homogenized artefact is deployed at the scale of a search engine, a newsroom, an election, or a research pipeline?

1. Four familiar ethical concerns, each grounded in a real case

- ▶ Environmental and financial cost
- ▶ Training data: consent, ownership, whose text
- ▶ Malicious and unethical application
- ▶ Risky application inside research itself

— **break** —

2. A sharper, epistemological version of concern (2)+(4): what is a language model actually doing when we treat its output as evidence about the world?

- ▶ Synthetic respondents in social science
- ▶ Semantic uncertainty: why the standard tools don't diagnose this

The second half draws on ongoing work, including my own — treat it as live research, not settled fact.

- ▶ Ethical AI critique is easy to nod along to in the abstract and easy to forget in practice.
- ▶ Each concern below is attached to a documented, named incident — with real financial, legal, or reputational consequences — precisely so it resists becoming abstract.
- ▶ Recurring question across all four: *who bears the cost, and who captures the benefit?* Keep this in mind through the whole section.

- ▶ Training a large model is not a one-off cost paid by its creator alone — energy, water, and rare-earth hardware demand are borne by the grids and communities hosting data centres.
- ▶ Bender et al. open “Stochastic Parrots” with exactly this point, before getting to language at all: *scale has a physical cost, and that cost is currently invisible in how we evaluate models.*
- ▶ This is not a solved problem from 2019 — it has scaled up with the models.

The question to hold onto

Who pays this cost, and who captures the benefit of the resulting capability?

Energy and Policy Considerations for Deep Learning in NLP — the paper Bender et al. cite for their environmental argument.

- ▶ Estimated the CO₂ emissions of training several NLP architectures of the era (Transformer, ELMo, BERT, GPT-2).
- ▶ Headline number: training a single large Transformer with neural architecture search emitted an estimated **626,000 lbs of CO₂** — roughly the lifetime emissions of **five cars** (including manufacture).
- ▶ Financial cost estimates ran into the hundreds of thousands of dollars for a single training run, *before* the many further runs needed for hyperparameter search.

Why this matters beyond 2019: models discussed in Lectures 2–3 are one to three orders of magnitude larger. The relative point — cost scales with capability, and is rarely priced into how “success” is reported — still holds.

Recall Lecture 3's **Data Statements** discussion (Bender & Friedman): pretraining corpora almost never document *whose* language they contain.

- ▶ Large models are trained on web-scraped text, mostly without the authors' knowledge or consent.
- ▶ This raises two distinct questions that are often conflated:
 - ▶ **Legal:** does this infringe copyright? (unsettled, jurisdiction-dependent, actively litigated)
 - ▶ **Normative:** even where legal, is it fair to the people whose labour produced the text a commercial model profits from?
- ▶ Bender et al.'s critique of “uncurated” data (Lecture 3 callback) is precisely about not knowing — and not being able to consent to — what's inside the training set.

Filed December 2023; still active as of this lecture.

- ▶ The Times alleges GPT models were trained on millions of its articles without permission, and can reproduce substantial portions verbatim on request.
- ▶ OpenAI's defence: training is **transformative fair use**; the Times allegedly had to manipulate prompts extensively to elicit verbatim reproduction.
- ▶ April 2025: Judge Stein allowed the core copyright claims to proceed to trial — the case is far from resolved.
- ▶ **Complication:** in 2025, courts in two *separate* cases (*Bartz v. Anthropic*, *Kadrey v. Meta*) found that training itself is highly transformative and can qualify as fair use — so the law is actively unsettled, not simply trending one way.

Side effect worth flagging: discovery in this case has forced OpenAI to preserve millions of user chat logs, creating a live tension between copyright litigation and *user* privacy — an unexpected second-order harm.

Concern 3: malicious and unethical application

- ▶ Distinct from training-data harms: here the model works *as intended*, but is deployed to deceive, suppress, or manipulate.
- ▶ Generative capability (voice cloning, image/video synthesis, fluent text) lowers the cost of producing convincing disinformation to near zero.
- ▶ This is squarely inside Weidinger et al.'s “malicious use” risk category, which we’ll return to after the break.

Case study: the 2024 New Hampshire “Biden” robocall

Two days before the January 2024 NH Democratic primary, thousands of voters received a robocall in an AI-cloned voice of President Biden, telling them not to vote in the primary and to “save” their vote for November.

- ▶ Created by political consultant Steve Kramer for \$150, using commodity AI voice-cloning tools.
- ▶ Caller ID was spoofed to appear as a local political operative — a deliberate deception layered on top of the deepfake itself.
- ▶ **Consequences:** FCC proposed a \$6 million fine against Kramer; the telecom carrier Lingo Telecom paid a \$1 million penalty for inadequate caller-verification; the FCC subsequently banned AI-voice robocalls outright.
- ▶ **Complication:** a New Hampshire jury *acquitted* Kramer of the criminal voter-suppression and impersonation charges in July 2025. The FCC fine and civil consequences remain.

Discussion point: the harm here required no model failure at all — fidelity was the entire attack.

Concern 4: risky application inside research itself

The cluster most directly relevant to this room.

- ▶ Concerns 1–3 are about the world outside the lab. This one is about what happens when researchers themselves over-trust model output.
- ▶ The core risk: fluent, confident, well-formatted text is easy to mistake for verified content — especially in domains (science, medicine) where authoritative register is itself a strong credibility signal.
- ▶ Recall Lecture 1: NLP systems compress *form*, not truth. A model optimized to sound like a scientific paper has no built-in mechanism ensuring the claims inside are correct.

Marketed explicitly as a model that could “store, combine, and reason about scientific knowledge” — summarizing papers, writing literature reviews, generating citations.

- ▶ Trained on 48 million papers, textbooks, and scientific web text.
- ▶ Public demo launched 15 November 2022; **pulled within 48 hours**.
- ▶ Scientists immediately found it generating fluent, citation-studded, entirely **fabricated** content: fake papers attributed to real authors, false physical constants, confidently wrong claims in specialists' own fields.
- ▶ Michael Black (Max Planck Institute): *“In all cases, it was wrong or biased but sounded right and authoritative. I think it's dangerous.”*

Why this belongs in a Bender et al. discussion: this is the “illusion of understanding” critique made concrete — a model with no mechanism for truth, deployed precisely where fluency is mistaken for expertise.

Galactica was a single dramatic failure, pulled in 48 hours. This is the slower, larger version of the same problem, unfolding across the literature right now.

- ▶ **Organization Science** (a top management journal) directly measured this: submissions up **42%** since ChatGPT’s release — roughly double the bump seen during COVID. Human-only submissions actually *declined*.
- ▶ By early 2026, a **majority** of submitted manuscripts show detectable AI involvement; the fastest-growing category is papers scoring 70%+ AI-generated.
- ▶ **Paper mills** — commercial operations selling ready-made manuscripts and guaranteed authorship slots — now use LLMs to mass-produce fabricated results, plausible-looking figures, and entire fake studies, concentrated in high-stakes fields like cancer research.
- ▶ Screening work on the PubMed corpus (17–20 million papers) is now needed just to *estimate* the scale of the problem.

- ▶ Galactica was a *product* that failed publicly and was withdrawn. The slop crisis is a *practice* — ordinary researchers and paper mills alike, using ordinary tools, at industrial scale, with no single moment of correction.
- ▶ There is no clean line between “a researcher used an LLM to help draft a discussion section” and “a paper mill used an LLM to fabricate an entire study.” Detection tools (Section 7 territory, Lecture 3) increasingly can’t cleanly separate these either.
- ▶ **This is not a hypothetical for this room.** Every methods-section documentation habit from Lecture 3 (model, version, prompts, validation) exists precisely to keep your own work on the right side of this line, visibly.

- ▶ Four concerns, four documented harms — none hypothetical, all with real financial, legal, or scientific consequences.
- ▶ Notice the common structure: in every case, **a genuine capability** (fluent generation, voice synthesis, broad text coverage) produces harm *via the specific way it was deployed or trusted* — not via a bug that better engineering straightforwardly fixes.
- ▶ Case 4 (Galactica) is the pivot point for the rest of today: it is a research-methods failure, not just a product failure.

Epistemic Problem

If confident, fluent output can be mistaken for verified scientific content, what happens when a discipline's actual *methodology* starts asking language models to stand in for something else entirely — a human research participant? That's where we're going next.

10 min break

From “is this harmful” to “what is this, epistemically”

Part 1 asked: does this output cause harm — financial, legal, scientific?

- ▶ That question can be answered by pointing at consequences.
- ▶ The next question is harder, and sits underneath many of Part 1's cases: **when a model produces text, what — if anything — does that text tell us about the world it was trained to describe?**
- ▶ We'll work through this with one live methodological debate in social science: using LLMs as survey respondents.

Recall Lecture 1

$S \rightarrow O \rightarrow T(O)$, and $I(S; T(O)) \leq I(S; O)$. Keep this exact structure in mind — we are about to see it appear again, in a place you might not expect.

The promise: “silicon sampling”

Argyle et al. (2023) propose conditioning an LLM on a real respondent’s sociodemographic backstory, and asking it to predict that respondent’s answer to a held-out survey question.

- ▶ They term the result **algorithmic fidelity**: the model doesn’t just match marginal response rates, it reproduces fine-grained *correlations* between attitudes, conditional on demographic backstory.
- ▶ The appeal for social science is obvious — human samples are small and expensive; a well-conditioned LLM promises statistical power for a fraction of the cost.
- ▶ This is not a fringe idea: it has been extended to economics (“homo silicus,” Horton 2023), and **commercialized** directly — companies including Synthetic Users and VeraSight now sell LLM-generated “synthetic panels” to market researchers.

If algorithmic fidelity held generally, this would mostly be an engineering problem. It doesn't.

- ▶ **Bisbee et al. (2024):** silicon-sampled GPT-3.5 responses inflate estimates of partisan and racial affective polarization by a factor of roughly **seven** relative to human benchmarks — attributed to stereotype amplification under persona conditioning.
- ▶ Performance gaps are worst precisely where stakes are highest: socially sensitive topics (“harmlessness bias” toward socially desirable answers), and non-Western/non-English contexts, tracking training-corpus imbalance.
- ▶ A synthesis of 285 silicon-vs-human comparisons (Sarstedt et al., 2024) concludes LLMs reproduce *surface-level* patterns but not deeper behavioural regularities.

The methodological response: rather than abandon the approach, researchers proposed ways to *correct* for this — which is where the real epistemological question hides.

Two proposed fixes

1. **Check for exchangeability:** compare synthetic and human responses on some metric (correlation, distributional overlap); if they look similar enough, treat them as interchangeable and pool them.
2. **Debias via a gold-standard human subsample** (Broska et al., 2025, applying **Prediction-Powered Inference**, Angelopoulos et al. 2023): use a smaller human sample to correct a larger LLM-generated sample. If LLM bias is negligible, you gain efficiency; if not, estimates default toward the human-only result.

Why fix (2) looks safe

It's framed as *always valid*: worst case, you fall back to the human sample. This is the claim we're going to interrogate.

Both approaches share a hidden dependency: they require treating LLM outputs as **i.i.d. draws** from (something close to) the same process that generates human responses. That assumption is where we go next.

What i.i.d. actually buys you

Independent and Identically Distributed — the load-bearing assumption of frequentist inference (CLT, MLE, standard errors, all of it).

Independence. For events $A_1, \dots, A_k$:

$$P\left(\bigcap_{j=1}^k A_j\right) = \prod_{j=1}^k P(A_j).$$

Beyond the algebra: each observation carries **non-redundant** information about the underlying process. More observations $\Rightarrow$ more knowledge.

Identically distributed.

$$P(A_1) = P(A_2) = \dots = P(A_k).$$

Repeated observations are draws from the *same* underlying process — so it's licit to pool them.

Both assumptions have to hold jointly for pooling synthetic and human data to mean what standard inference needs it to mean.

Put the LLM pipeline into the $S \rightarrow O \rightarrow T(O)$ structure directly.

- ▶ S : the human social process — the actual attitudes, beliefs, and behaviours we want to learn about.
- ▶ O : the training corpus — one enormous, but ultimately **single**, historical trace of S .
- ▶ $T(O) = \theta$: the trained model's fixed parameters — a compressed, lossy summary of that one trace.

The crucial fact: θ is estimated *once*, at training time, and then **frozen**. Every subsequent query — every “synthetic respondent” you generate — is a query to this one fixed object, not a fresh interaction with S .

The question this raises

If θ is fixed, what exactly are you sampling when you generate J “different” synthetic respondents?

Independence fails: there is only one draw

Treating J LLM generations as J independent new experiments requires each to come from an independent new interaction with S . They don't.

$$P(Y_{1:J} \mid \theta, p_{1:J}) \neq \prod_{j=1}^J P(Y_j \mid \theta_j), \quad \theta_j = \mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathcal{D}_j).$$

- ▶ The right-hand side is what independence *would* require: each Y_j generated by parameters θ_j updated on its own independent data $\mathcal{D}_j$.
- ▶ At inference time, there is no $\mathcal{D}_j$. θ does not update. Prompts $p_{1:J}$ **condition** a fixed distribution; they do not **inform** it.
- ▶ So all J outputs are downstream of the *same* single draw — the training step — dressed up as J different draws by varying the prompt.

This is the DPI, restated as a sampling failure: conditioning a fixed, already-lossy $T(O)$ cannot manufacture new independent information about S , no matter how many times you query it.

Identically distributed also fails — but subtly

Compared only to *each other*, LLM outputs genuinely are i.i.d.: same model, same representational space, conditional on fixed decoding settings. That part is fine.

The failure is at the joint level. Claiming LLM outputs and human responses are identically distributed *together* requires the model's representational space to fully cover the space of human responses. In general:

$$\text{supp}(P_{\text{LLM}}) \subsetneq \text{supp}(P_{\text{human}}).$$

- ▶ P_{LLM} 's support is finite and fixed by one historical corpus. P_{human} is generated by an open, ongoing social process that keeps producing genuinely new modes of response.
- ▶ Even where observed LLM outputs *happen to match* observed human responses, matching realizations does not establish that the generating distributions coincide.

Why you can't just check this empirically

The natural response: “fine — let's test exchangeability empirically, using correlation, effective sample size, coverage.”

The circularity

Every one of those diagnostics is *itself defined* with respect to a data-generating process in which repeated observations are i.i.d. To measure “how exchangeable” two sources are, you must already have assumed the sampling structure whose validity is in question.

- ▶ Interchangeability is not a hypothesis the data can settle on its own — it is a **constitutive assumption** about what counts as “repeating the same experiment.”
- ▶ Without prior epistemic licence to treat θ 's outputs as draws from S , an empirical alignment score cannot retroactively grant that licence.

Consequence for PPI-style debiasing (Broska et al.): the “always valid, worst case you fall back to human data” framing is less safe than it looks — the debiasing step itself inherits the same i.i.d. dependency it was meant to route around.

To be precise about the claim, because it's easy to overstate.

- ▶ **Not claimed:** LLMs can never be used in social-science measurement pipelines.
- ▶ **Claimed:** using LLM output *as if it were* an i.i.d. sample from the human population requires an epistemic licence that current empirical-check and debiasing methods assume, but do not establish — and in the case of the i.i.d. assumption specifically, cannot establish by the data alone.
- ▶ Other uses of LLMs sit on different epistemic footing — e.g. **classification** of existing human-generated text (annotation, coding), which doesn't ask the model to generate new “respondents” at all, just to label data that already came from S . This is closer to the design-based/semi-supervised settings from Lecture 2.

The real question, restated: not “can this be deployed,” but *what inferential claims is a given use actually licensed to support.*

Notice what the whole argument turned on: not that LLM outputs are *low quality*, but that repeated queries to a fixed θ don't behave like repeated sampling from S — no matter how varied the prompts, how fluent the output, how well individual answers seem to match human data.

Bridge to the next section

This raises a question we've been dodging: when you *do* get variation across queries to the same model — different phrasings, different sampling temperature, different-but-related prompts — what *is* that variation telling you? Is it telling you anything about the world, or only about the model's internal geometry?

This is exactly the question semantic uncertainty research tries to formalize — and it's where we're headed next.

What does variation across queries actually measure?

We ended Part 2A on a question: when an LLM's output varies across prompts, phrasings, or sampling runs, what is that variation telling you?

- ▶ The standard tool for this in current NLP research is **semantic entropy** (Kuhn et al. 2023): sample several generations for one input, cluster them by *meaning* (usually via bidirectional entailment / NLI), and compute entropy over the resulting clusters rather than over raw strings.
- ▶ Low semantic entropy $\Rightarrow$ the model consistently says “the same thing,” even if the exact wording varies $\Rightarrow$ treated as a proxy for confidence/reliability.
- ▶ **This method needs a working notion of “same meaning.”** It borrows one implicitly, without asking which one, or whether it's the right one for the question being asked.

Where we're going

There isn't one settled formal theory of meaning. Two very different ones give two very different answers to what “semantic stability” should even mean.

Montague: model-theoretic

- ▶ Meaning = truth conditions
- ▶ A fixed correspondence between expressions and a model
- ▶ No sender, no receiver, no interaction

Lewis / Skyrms: coordination-based

- ▶ Meaning = a convention that solves a coordination problem
- ▶ Constituted by repeated interaction between agents
- ▶ No fixed model — meaning is an equilibrium property

The claim we're building to: Kuhn et al.'s semantic entropy is implicitly Montagovian. That's a substantive choice, not a neutral default — and it may be measuring the wrong kind of stability for questions about whether a model's language can actually coordinate with anyone.

A model $M = \langle D, I \rangle$: a domain of individuals D , and an interpretation function I assigning denotations to non-logical constants.

- ▶ Every well-formed expression α has a denotation α^M , computed **compositionally**: the meaning of a complex expression is a function of the meanings of its parts and their mode of combination.
- ▶ A sentence S is **true in M** if $S^M = 1$; extended to possible-worlds semantics, meaning becomes a function from worlds to truth values (an intension).

What this presupposes

A fixed, agent-independent correspondence between language and a domain. Two utterances have “the same meaning” if they have the same truth conditions in M — full stop. There is no place in this picture for a sender, a receiver, or a history of interaction between them.

A **signaling game** $G = \langle T, M, A, \sigma, \rho, u \rangle$:

- ▶ T : states of the world; M : messages; A : receiver actions
- ▶ $\sigma : T \rightarrow M$, the sender's strategy; $\rho : M \rightarrow A$, the receiver's strategy
- ▶ u : a shared (or partially shared) payoff, maximized when $\rho(\sigma(t))$ is the correct action for state t

Signaling system equilibrium

A pair (σ, ρ) is a **signaling system** if σ is injective and $\rho(\sigma(t)) = a(t)$ for every $t \in T$: distinct states get distinct messages, and the receiver always recovers the right action.

Meaning of message m is defined by its role in this equilibrium: m “means” t if $\sigma(t) = m$. There is no model M fixed in advance — meaning is constituted by the strategy pair itself.

Lewis (1969) treats signaling systems as solutions rational agents could reach by explicit reasoning. Skyrms asks: do you need that much?

- ▶ Skyrms shows signaling systems emerge from **simple reinforcement dynamics** (e.g. Roth–Erev learning) over repeated play, with no prior rationality or common knowledge required — just repeated interaction and payoff-following.
- ▶ **Multiple signaling systems can be equally good equilibria.** There is no guarantee the population converges to a unique one, or that whichever one it reaches tracks anything “true” about T beyond successful coordination.
- ▶ Consequence: meaning, on this view, is inherently **social, dynamical, and potentially non-unique** — not a fixed fact about a static model.

This is Lecture 1's Alice and Bob, formalized

Recall the encoding chain from Lecture 1:

$M_{\text{mind}} \rightarrow M_{\text{speech}} \rightarrow M_{\text{text}} \rightarrow M'_{\text{text}} \rightarrow \hat{M}_{\text{speech}} \rightarrow \hat{M}_{\text{mind}}$, and the warning that communication is the movement of *encoded representations*, not meaning itself.

- ▶ A Lewis/Skyrms signaling game *is* a formal model of exactly this chain — sender, message, receiver, success condition — made game-theoretic and dynamic.
- ▶ Montague semantics, by contrast, has no sender or receiver in it at all. It asks what a sentence *means*, as a static fact, once you already have a model M .
- ▶ **Neither is wrong.** They are answers to different questions: “what are the truth conditions of this string” vs. “does this string let two agents successfully coordinate.”

Where semantic entropy sits, and the gap it leaves

Kuhn et al.'s clustering step — group generations by bidirectional entailment — is a **Montagovian** move: it asks whether two strings have the same truth conditions, computed by a single auxiliary model (an NLI classifier), with no second agent and no interaction.

The gap

Low semantic entropy (Montague-stable) does **not** imply the output would let a second agent correctly recover the intended state t in a signaling game (Lewis/Skyrms-stable). These are logically independent notions of “stability,” testing different things.

- ▶ A model can produce paraphrase-consistent, truth-condition-stable text about a contested term, while that text *fails* to coordinate two different interpreters onto the same referent — because the term's meaning, in Lewis/Skyrms terms, was never a single stable convention to begin with.
- ▶ Existing semantic uncertainty methods have no way to detect this failure mode, because they never construct a receiver.

The ontological fork the framework forces

Go back to the signaling game: (σ, ρ) is a signaling system — an **equilibrium** that a population of interacting agents settles into. Two very different things could correspond to “an LLM” in this picture.

Option A: the LLM is an agent

It occupies a role in the game — sender or receiver — with its own strategy, potentially its own goals, something we could hold to a standard of good or bad play.

Option B: the LLM is the equilibrium

It *is* (σ, ρ) itself — a crystallized, statistical summary of how a population of *human* senders and receivers already coordinated meaning, frozen at training time (recall: θ is fixed, Part 2A).

This is not a rhetorical choice. It changes where ethical responsibility can coherently live.

Two very different research programmes follow

If the LLM is an agent

- ▶ Ethics is imposed *on the model*: alignment, constitutional training, corrigibility, “teaching it values”
- ▶ Failures are the agent’s failures — it was insufficiently honest, insufficiently careful
- ▶ Fixes look like: better training objectives, better RLHF, better guardrails

If the LLM is an equilibrium

- ▶ The model has no more moral standing than a compressed dictionary of how *we* already spoke
- ▶ Failures are *our* failures — whose speech got included, who deployed it, how, on whom
- ▶ Fixes look like: Lecture 3’s governance, documentation, and data-curation practices

Notice: Option A is where most public “AI ethics” discourse currently sits. Bender et al.’s entire argument, restated in this vocabulary, is a case *for Option B*.

Every case from Part 1 looks different depending which option you pick.

- ▶ **The robocall:** under Option A, you might ask whether the *voice-cloning model* behaved wrongly. It didn't — it worked exactly as designed. The wrongdoing was Kramer's, a human decision about deployment. **Option B was always the right frame here**, and the FCC's fines and charges, correctly, targeted people, not the tool.
- ▶ **Galactica / paper mills:** under Option A, the model “hallucinated.” Under Option B, a compressed equilibrium of scientific-sounding text was deployed somewhere it could be mistaken for verified knowledge — a curation and deployment failure, squarely on the people who built and shipped it that way.
- ▶ **Synthetic respondents (Part 2A):** the entire critique *is* an Option-B argument — θ is a frozen equilibrium of a past corpus, not a fresh agent capable of independently informing you about the present social world.